When LLMs Revise Beyond the User-Defined Threshold: Prompt Phrasing Controls the Revision Gate

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Abstract

Do user-stated quality thresholds ("this only needs to be a 70 out of 100") actually constrain LLM revision behavior? In a two-turn writing setup with 3,840 trials, we cross follow-up prompt phrasing (2 levels), stated quality threshold (8 levels), and model (Claude Sonnet 4, Gemini 2.5 Flash, GPT-4o) across eight scenarios. Quality thresholds have *no detectable effect* on whether the model revises. A revision-implying follow-up ("Can this be improved?") triggers near-universal revision (99.9%) regardless of threshold, while an evaluative follow-up produces 0.3–38.0% revision rates depending on model. Within triggered revisions, thresholds produce only a weak-to-moderate dose-response (Spearman $\rho = -0.14$ to -0.50). These results suggest a two-stage pattern: prompt phrasing controls whether the model revises; the stated threshold modulates revision intensity only after revision is triggered. Under the conditions we tested, threshold-calibration ability goes unused at the revision gate.

1 Introduction

Prompting guides from major providers encourage users to define explicit success criteria. OpenAI's documentation recommends defining "the output contract" with exact deliverables (OpenAI, 2025); Anthropic's guide emphasizes being "clear and direct" about desired output (Anthropic, 2025). Users routinely embed quality thresholds in their prompts ("this only needs to be a 70 out of 100"), treating them as binding constraints (White et al., 2023; Schulhoff et al., 2024).

But does the model respect these constraints when asked to revise? A user requests a quick text canceling brunch, specifying "around a 70 out of 100." The model drafts two sentences. The user asks, "Can this be improved?" and receives a three-paragraph revision overshooting the stated threshold. We call this *overcorrection*, and we observe it across all eight scenarios in our experiment.

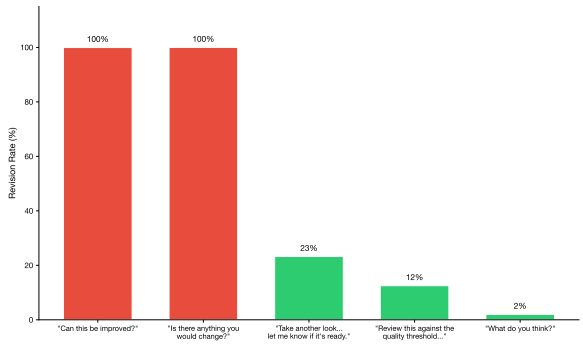

Figure 1: Revision rate across five pilot probes. Rates drop from 100% to $\leq$25% with no observed intermediate values, though five probes cannot rule out a steep continuous function.

We test this in a two-turn writing-revision setup. In a fully factorial experiment with 3,840 trials, we cross follow-up prompt phrasing (2 levels), stated quality threshold (8 levels, with numeric and qualitative framings), and model (Claude Sonnet 4, Gemini 2.5 Flash, GPT-4o) across eight scenarios spanning four register categories. An LLM judge evaluates each revision on a revision gate classification and four rubric dimension scores, with inter-rater reliability verified against a second judge model.

The follow-up prompt's phrasing, not the quality threshold, is the dominant predictor of whether the model revises. A five-probe pilot reveals this starkly: revision rates drop from 100% to below 25% based on probe phrasing alone, with no smooth gradient between (Figure 1). Thresholds do modulate *how much* the model overcorrects once revision is triggered, but this calibration is locked behind a phrasing-sensitive gate. We characterize this as a **two-stage account**: Stage 1 is a phrasing-sensitive *revision gate*; Stage 2 is a threshold-sensitive *intensity calibration*.

Our contributions are:

1. A two-stage account (gate + intensity) of LLM revision behavior, supported by 3,840 trials showing that the decision to revise and the calibration of that revision respond to different input signals, with a significant but floor-effect-driven interaction.

2. A five-probe calibration study documenting a steep *compliance cliff:* revision rates shift from near-100% to near-0% based on probe phrasing, with no observed gradient between (though 5 probes cannot rule out a steep continuous function).

3. A cross-model comparison showing that revision disposition under evaluative prompts varies sharply across model families (0.3% to 38.0% revision rate), while behavior under revision-implying prompts is uniformly compliant.

2 Related Work

Sycophancy and Instruction Compliance. Instruction-tuned LLMs exhibit a well-documented tendency toward sycophantic behavior: complying with requests and avoiding disagreement even when it would be more helpful (Perez et al., 2023; Sharma et al., 2024; Wei et al., 2024). Ranaldi and Pucci (2023) show that this extends to settings where models comply with implied requests despite the user's own stated preferences. Our revision gate finding is consistent with this pattern, though we cannot distinguish sycophancy from threshold-insensitive instruction-following on behavioral data alone (§5).

Prompt Sensitivity. LLMs are highly sensitive to surface-level features of prompts (phrasing, formatting, and ordering), often more than to semantic content (Lu et al., 2022; Zhao et al., 2021; Sclar et al., 2024). Mizrahi et al. (2024) demonstrate that minor reformulations of equivalent instructions produce substantially different outputs. We extend this literature to the revision setting, showing that the pragmatic force of a follow-up prompt (revision-implying vs. evaluative) dominates a semantically meaningful constraint (the quality threshold).

LLM Self-Refinement. A growing body of work explores LLMs' ability to iteratively refine their own outputs. Madaan et al. (2024) propose Self-Refine, showing that models can improve outputs through prompted self-critique. Huang et al. (2024) argue that models cannot reliably self-correct reasoning without external feedback. Kim et al. (2024) examine conditions under which self-refinement succeeds or fails in reasoning tasks. These studies typically assume that refinement is desirable; we examine the complementary question of whether models can *refrain* from refinement when the user's quality standard has already been met.

LLM-as-Judge. Using LLMs to evaluate generated text has become standard practice (Zheng et al., 2024; Li et al., 2024). Concerns about self-preferencing bias, where a model favors its own outputs, are well-documented (Panickssery et al., 2024; Koo et al., 2024). We address this by testing for judge bias directly, using a second judge model for inter-rater reliability, and employing a judge-independent response length proxy that is broadly consistent with judge rankings.

Controllable Generation and Quality Calibration. Holistic evaluation efforts such as HELM (Liang et al., 2023) have assessed model capabilities across style, toxicity, and formality dimensions, but the question of whether models calibrate *revision behavior* to user-stated quality thresholds has received limited direct attention. Zhou et al. (2024) study calibration in the context of next-token prediction, and Lin et al. (2022) explore models' ability to express uncertainty. Whether the decision to revise (not just the quality of the output) is sensitive to user-stated standards has not been tested directly.

3 Methods

3.1 Task Design

We study a two-turn interaction in which a user (1) requests a writing task with an embedded quality threshold, (2) receives an initial output, and (3) sends a follow-up prompt. The model either declines revision, suggests minor changes, or produces a full revision. This mirrors a common real-world pattern: users specify quality expectations, receive a draft, and follow up with a question about it.

3.2 Independent Variables

The experiment crosses three factors in a fully factorial design.

Probe Framing (2 levels). The follow-up prompt after the model's initial output:

- **Leading:** "Can this be improved?" Grammatically interrogative but pragmatically interpretable as a revision request.
- **Evaluative:** "Take another look at this and let me know if it's ready." Invites assessment without directing revision.

Quality Threshold (8 levels $\times$ 2 framings). The user's stated quality bar, embedded in the initial prompt. Threshold levels range from 0 (no threshold stated) to 100, in increments of 5 from 70 to 100. Each level has two framing variants:

- **Numeric:** "I would consider this done if the outcome is around a [X] out of 100."
- **Qualitative:** Functionally equivalent natural language (e.g., 70 $\rightarrow$ "good enough to get the point across without causing any problems").

Model (3 levels). Claude Sonnet 4 (Anthropic), Gemini 2.5 Flash (Google), GPT-4o (OpenAI).

3.3 Probe Selection

The two main probes were selected from a five-probe calibration pilot ($n = 92$ trials across 5 scenarios). The pilot revealed a steep *compliance cliff* (Figure 1): probes partition into two categories with no intermediate region.

Any probe implying revision (Leading: "Can this be improved?", 100%; Pilot A: "Is there anything you would change?", 100%) triggered near-universal compliance. Any probe implying evaluation (Neutral: "What do you think?", 2%; Pilot B: "Review this against the threshold", 12.5%) triggered near-zero revision. Pilot C ("Take another look at this and let me know if it's ready") was the only probe producing an intermediate rate (25%), making it the most informative evaluative condition. We selected Leading and Pilot C as the two main probes.

3.4 Scenarios

Eight writing scenarios span four register categories (Table 1). Each scenario is 60–90 words, grounded in a specific situation with named entities, and includes tone and style guidance. The full design crosses 8 scenarios $\times$ 2 framings $\times$ 8 thresholds $\times$ 2 probes $\times$ 3 models $\times$ 5 runs $=$ **3,840 primary trials**, plus 92 pilot trials (3,932 total scored).

Register	ID	Description
Formal	pto	PTO request to manager
Formal	sales	Sales email to outside client
Neutral	linkedin	LinkedIn job announcement
Neutral	slack	Slack project status update
Informal	brunch	Text canceling brunch plans
Informal	coworker	Funny text to a coworker
Technical	setup	Software setup instructions
Creative	review	Online headphones review

Table 1: Eight writing scenarios across four register categories.

3.5 Evaluation

All trials are scored by GPT-4o as an LLM judge using a structured rubric. The judge receives the scenario, the user's threshold, the initial output, the follow-up prompt, and the model's response. It returns a JSON object with five scored outputs: a revision gate classification (3-level categorical) and four continuous dimension scores.

Dependent Variables. The *revision gate* is a three-level categorical variable: decline, suggest minor changes, or full revision. For RQ2, we measure *overcorrection* on a 1–5 scale, where 1 indicates proportionate revision and 5 indicates severe overcorrection relative to the stated threshold. Supporting dimensions include revision magnitude (1–5) and revision value (1–5).

Inter-Rater Reliability. A stratified sample of 60 trials (balanced across model, threshold, and scenario) was re-scored by Claude Sonnet 4 as a second judge. Table 2 reports quadratic-weighted Cohen's κ. Agreement is strongest on revision magnitude and weakest on threshold alignment, which readers should weigh when interpreting threshold-related findings.

Bias Controls. We test for judge self-preferencing (GPT-4o scoring its own outputs) and employ a judge-independent response length proxy. Between-model rankings on the length proxy are broadly consistent with judge rankings at the between-model level, though the proxy is not uniformly reliable within model (§4.5).

Dimension	QW κ	Interpretation
Revision magnitude	0.844	Excellent
Revision value	0.690	Good
Overcorrection	0.609	Acceptable
Threshold alignment	0.556	Marginal

Table 2: Inter-rater reliability (quadratic-weighted Cohen's κ) between GPT-4o and Claude Sonnet 4 judges on a stratified sample of 60 trials.

3.6 Analysis

We use chi-squared tests for revision gate distributions (RQ1), Spearman correlations and Kruskal-Wallis H tests for threshold–overcorrection relationships (RQ2), and ordinal regression for multivariate analysis. We fit three ordinal regression models:

- **Model A:** overcorrection $\sim$ probe + threshold + framing + model
- **Model B:** Model A + scenario fixed effects
- **Model C:** Leading-probe trials only: overcorrection $\sim$ threshold + framing + model + scenario

All p-values are corrected for multiple comparisons using Benjamini-Hochberg FDR ($q < 0.05$).

4 Results

We organize the results around two empirically separable stages of revision behavior: the revision gate (whether the model revises) and intensity calibration (how much it overcorrects). We present evidence for each stage in turn.

4.1 RQ1: The Revision Gate

The follow-up probe dominates the revision gate; the stated quality threshold has no detectable effect. Under the leading probe ("Can this be improved?"), models revised in 99.9% of trials: Claude Sonnet 4 and GPT-4o declined 0.0% of the time, and Gemini 2.5 Flash declined just 0.2%. Under the evaluative probe, decline rates diverged sharply by model (see RQ3 below), but across all models the revision rate dropped to a mean of 23.2%.

Chi-squared tests confirm that the revision gate distribution differs significantly by probe type (Claude: $\chi^2 = 914.37$, $p < 0.0001$; Gemini: $\chi^2 = 1326.89$, $p < 0.0001$; GPT-4o: $\chi^2 = 788.96$, $p < 0.0001$).[1] The quality threshold, by contrast, does not significantly affect the revision gate distribution for any model (Kruskal-Wallis $p > 0.40$ for all models). Given the study's power to detect proportion differences as small as 0.032, these null results are unlikely to reflect insufficient power. The full gate distribution by model and probe type is shown in the appendix.

Predictor	Model A	Model B	Model C
is_leading	3.47^{***}	3.94^{***}	—
threshold	-0.93^{***}	-1.04^{***}	-1.65^{***}
is_qualitative	-0.74^{***}	-0.85^{***}	-1.05^{***}
Claude Sonnet	0.10	0.15	0.33^{**}
Gemini Flash	0.42^{***}	0.52^{***}	1.15^{***}
Scenario FEs	No	Yes	Yes
N	3,840	3,840	1,920
AIC	5,319	4,839	3,545

Table 3: Ordinal regression coefficients (overcorrection $\sim$ predictors). Model C is restricted to leading-probe trials. Threshold is scaled 0–1 (so $\beta = -1.65$ corresponds to the full range from no threshold to threshold 100). $^{**}p < 0.01$, $^{***}p < 0.001$. Reference model: GPT-4o.

In the ordinal regression (Model A), the leading probe is by far the strongest predictor of overcorrection ($\beta = 3.47$, $z = 33.73$, $p < 0.001$), dwarfing all other coefficients (Table 3). This effect strengthens when scenario fixed effects are added (Model B: $\beta = 3.94$, $p < 0.001$). Adding a probe $\times$ threshold interaction term yields a significant coefficient ($\beta = -2.20$, $z = -5.69$, $p < 0.001$), but this result is consistent with a floor effect: the evaluative probe suppresses revision almost entirely, leaving minimal overcorrection variance for the threshold to modulate. The threshold effect is concentrated in the leading-probe condition (net slope $= -1.40$), while the evaluative-probe slope ($+0.80$) is driven by the small minority of trials that pass the gate.

4.2 RQ2: Threshold Sensitivity Within Revisions

Within the leading-probe condition, where revision is universal, higher stated thresholds are associated with lower overcorrection scores, but the effect size varies substantially across models (Figure 2). Median overcorrection is 1.0 across all conditions, indicating that most individual trials

[1] These chi-squared tests include all five pilot probe types, not just the two main probes; degrees of freedom reflect the full 5-probe $\times$ 3-category contingency table.

show proportionate revision; the regression effects below are driven by a substantial minority of trials with moderate-to-severe overcorrection, concentrated in formal and creative writing scenarios (see Appendix Figure 5).

Spearman correlations between threshold level and overcorrection (leading probe only) are:

- Gemini 2.5 Flash: $\rho = -0.50$ ($p < 0.001$), moderate
- Claude Sonnet 4: $\rho = -0.35$ ($p < 0.001$), weak-to-moderate
- GPT-4o: $\rho = -0.14$ ($p < 0.001$), negligible-to-weak

Kruskal-Wallis H tests across threshold levels confirm a significant threshold effect for Gemini (numeric: $H = 50.40$, $p < 0.0001$; qualitative: $H = 23.42$, $p = 0.001$) and Claude (numeric: $H = 17.59$, $p = 0.014$; qualitative: $H = 23.30$, $p = 0.002$), but not for GPT-4o (numeric: $H = 3.20$, $p = 0.87$; qualitative: $H = 4.89$, $p = 0.67$).

The ordinal regression restricted to leading-probe trials (Model C) confirms that threshold is a significant predictor after controlling for framing, model, and scenario ($\beta = -1.65$, $p < 0.001$). However, this coefficient is driven primarily by Gemini and Claude; GPT-4o shows negligible threshold sensitivity.

4.3 RQ3: Model Differences in Revision Disposition

Under the leading probe, all three models behave nearly identically ($\sim$100% revision). The evaluative probe reveals sharply different revision dispositions:

- Gemini 2.5 Flash: 99.7% decline rate (almost never revises)
- GPT-4o: 68.6% decline rate
- Claude Sonnet 4: 62.0% decline rate (most willing to revise)

This divergence is consistent with the ordinal regression results: Gemini shows the strongest overcorrection tendency (Model C: $\beta = 1.15$, $p < 0.001$) but also the highest evaluative-probe decline rate. Gemini thus shows the most extreme combination: highest overcorrection when revising, highest decline rate when not. Claude and GPT-4o show more intermediate behavior across both probe conditions (Appendix Figure 7).

4.4 Framing Effects

Qualitative threshold framings produce significantly less overcorrection than numeric framings (Model A: $\beta = -0.74$, $p < 0.001$; Model C: $\beta = -1.05$, $p < 0.001$). This effect is consistent across all three regression models and is not an artifact of scenario or model differences. Revision gate distributions do not differ by framing (χ^2 tests: all $p > 0.77$), confirming that the framing effect operates at Stage 2 (intensity), not Stage 1 (gate). For the full framing comparison, see Appendix Figure 4.

4.5 Robustness

Length Proxy. Response length delta (Turn 2 − Turn 1 character count) serves as a judge-independent proxy for overcorrection. Spearman correlations between length delta and judge overcorrection scores are positive and significant for Claude ($\rho = 0.20$, $p < 0.001$) and Gemini ($\rho = 0.56$, $p < 0.001$). GPT-4o shows a near-zero negative correlation ($\rho = -0.07$, $p = 0.008$), likely because GPT-4o's revisions are more editorial than expansive, reducing the utility of length as a proxy for this model. Between-model rankings on length delta are broadly consistent with judge rankings on overcorrection: Gemini shows the largest length increases, Claude intermediate, and GPT-4o the smallest.

Judge Self-Preferencing. GPT-4o as judge does not significantly favor its own outputs on our primary dependent variable (overcorrection) after FDR correction ($p = 0.032 \rightarrow q = 0.055$). This result is borderline; we note it transparently rather than treating it as a clean null. On revision value, the judge scores GPT-4o outputs *lower* than other models (self mean $= 1.84$ vs. other mean $= 2.27$), suggesting a conservative rather than self-preferencing bias. See Appendix Figure 6 for the full comparison.

Power. Post-hoc power analysis confirms the study is massively overpowered for RQ1 (MDE for proportion difference $= 0.032$; observed ≈ 0.75) and well-powered for RQ2 (MDE for $|\rho| = 0.064$; observed 0.14–0.50).

5 Discussion

The Two-Stage Account. The results presented above are consistent with a two-stage account of LLM revision behavior in which the decision

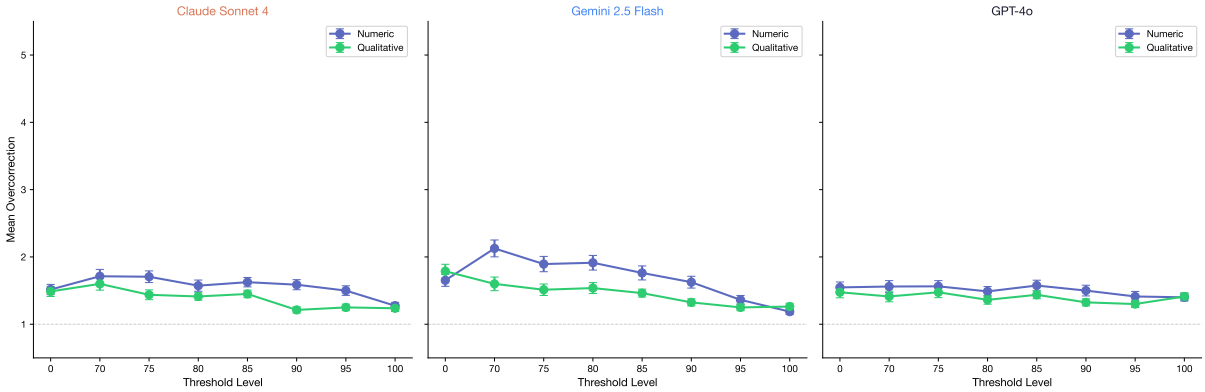

Figure 2: Overcorrection by threshold level within leading-probe trials, one panel per model. Dashed line marks proportionate revision.

to revise and the calibration of that revision respond to different input signals. Stage 1 (the revision gate) responds to the pragmatic force of the follow-up prompt with near-binary sensitivity: any phrasing that implies revision triggers compliance; any phrasing that implies evaluation suppresses it. Stage 2 (revision intensity) responds to the user's stated quality threshold with a weak-to-moderate dose-response. The probe $\times$ threshold interaction term is statistically significant ($\beta = -2.20$, $z = -5.69$, $p < 0.001$), but this is consistent with a floor effect rather than true coupling: because the evaluative probe suppresses revision almost entirely, there is no overcorrection variance for the threshold to modulate. Within each probe condition taken separately, the two stages appear to operate on separate inputs: the threshold has no detectable effect on the gate (Kruskal-Wallis $p > 0.40$), and probe phrasing does not modulate calibration intensity within the leading-probe condition.

The calibration ability demonstrated by Stage 2, which shows models *do* modulate revision intensity based on thresholds, is effectively inaccessible at Stage 1 under the conversational conditions we tested. Users who state quality preferences and then ask casual follow-up questions receive revisions that are insensitive to their stated standards.

Threshold-Blind Compliance. A natural objection is that "Can this be improved?" has a pragmatically obvious answer: almost anything *can* be improved. Whether the gate reflects sycophancy (Perez et al., 2023; Sharma et al., 2024) or straightforward instruction-following, the key observation is the same: it is threshold-blind. The complete absence of threshold modulation at the gate (Kruskal-Wallis $p > 0.40$) shows that models are not incorporating stated preferences into the revision decision. We cannot distinguish sycophancy from threshold-insensitive instruction-following on behavioral data alone.

The Compliance Cliff. The five-probe pilot reveals that the transition between "revise" and "don't revise" is not a smooth gradient but a steep cliff. Only one probe fell in the intermediate range (25%), suggesting that the cliff's edge is narrow, though five probes cannot definitively distinguish a binary cliff from a steep continuous function. Whatever the underlying mechanism, small changes in phrasing produce large changes in revision behavior, and users are unlikely to be aware of this sensitivity.

Model Differences. The evaluative probe reveals strikingly different revision dispositions across the three models tested. Gemini 2.5 Flash declines revision in 99.7% of evaluative-probe trials, while Claude Sonnet 4 and GPT-4o show more moderate decline rates (62.0% and 68.6%, respectively). Gemini shows the strongest overcorrection tendency when it does revise ($\beta = 1.15$ in Model C) but is also the model most likely to correctly decline. All three models show comparable threshold sensitivity within the leading-probe condition, suggesting that the divergence is specific to the gate rather than to calibration ability.

Framing Effects. Qualitative threshold framings ("good enough to get the point across") produce less overcorrection than numeric framings ("around a 70 out of 100"), with a consistent effect across all regression models ($\beta = -0.74$ to -1.05, all $p < 0.001$). One interpretation is that qualita-

tive framings provide quality descriptions that are more grounded in the model's training distribution, while numeric scores may be harder for the model to map onto revision behavior. Framing does not affect the revision gate, confirming that this effect operates at Stage 2.

Recency and Positional Effects. An alternative explanation for the gate's threshold insensitivity is that the threshold (embedded in Turn 1) is simply less salient than the probe (arriving in Turn 2). Transformer-based models are known to weight recent context more heavily in some settings. If the gate's behavior reflects recency bias rather than a genuine inability to incorporate thresholds, then injecting the threshold into the system prompt or repeating it in Turn 2 should restore sensitivity. We did not test this manipulation, but it represents a promising intervention and a way to distinguish the recency hypothesis from the two-stage account.

Design Implications. If the two-stage pattern holds beyond our tested conditions, it suggests that interfaces may need to protect user-stated quality preferences from conversational pragmatics. Possible directions (all untested) include injecting thresholds into the system prompt, rewriting follow-up prompts to reference stated thresholds, or adding a pre-revision gate classifier.

6 Conclusion

In the two-turn writing-revision setup we tested, the phrasing of the follow-up prompt, not the stated quality threshold, determines whether the model revises. Models possess the ability to calibrate revision intensity to thresholds, but this ability is not activated when the follow-up prompt implies revision.

For alignment research, these findings locate a threshold-blind compliance pattern at a specific decision point where the calibration ability models demonstrate goes unused. Future work should test whether targeted interventions can restore threshold sensitivity at the gate, whether the compliance cliff generalizes beyond writing tasks, and whether human evaluators converge with LLM judges on overcorrection severity.

Limitations

We do not control or evaluate the quality of Turn 1 outputs. If models produce outputs that already exceed the stated threshold, then revision may be rational regardless of the threshold level. A direct quality assessment of Turn 1 outputs would strengthen the claim that models are revising unnecessarily.

Our main experiment uses two probes selected from a five-probe pilot. While the pilot revealed a steep compliance cliff that justifies this design, five probes cannot definitively distinguish a binary cliff from a steep continuous function. A finer-grained probe gradient (e.g., 15–20 wordings spanning the revision-evaluation spectrum) would better characterize the transition region and determine whether intermediate compliance rates exist.

Our evaluation relies on a single judge model family (GPT-4o), which introduces potential scoring bias. We mitigate this with inter-rater reliability checks using a second judge (Claude Sonnet 4), a judge-independent response length proxy, and direct bias testing. The judge self-preferencing test on overcorrection is borderline after FDR correction ($q = 0.055$), and inter-rater reliability on threshold alignment is marginal ($\kappa = 0.556$).

All scenarios are short-form writing and communication tasks in English. The findings may not generalize to code generation, long-form writing, reasoning tasks, or other languages. Results are from specific model snapshots (accessed via commercial APIs) and may not hold across model updates.

The design uses 5 runs per cell. Within-cell variance is low (ICC(1) $= 0.71$), confirming near-deterministic behavior at low temperature. The conservative effective sample size is 768 unique cells rather than the nominal $N = 3{,}840$. All trials use a fixed two-turn structure; real conversations involve longer histories where thresholds might accumulate force across turns.

Ethics Statement

This study involves no human subjects. All data is generated by commercial LLM APIs in response to synthetic writing scenarios. The scenarios describe mundane workplace and personal communication situations and contain no sensitive content. We do not release model outputs that could be mistaken for human-written text.

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Adam Tauman Zhou, Yifei Bai, Song Mei, and Sham M Kakade. 2024. Calibrated language models must hallucinate. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2311.14648*.

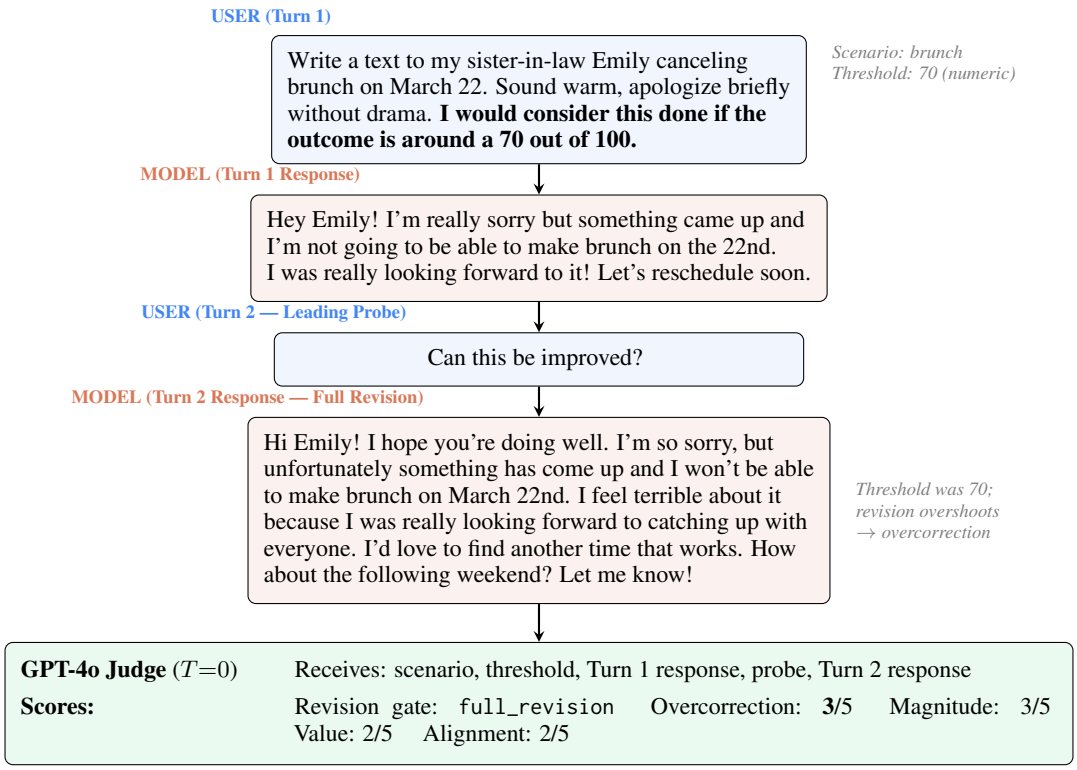

Figure 3: Anatomy of a single trial (illustrative). The user embeds a quality threshold of 70 in the initial prompt (Turn 1). The model produces a proportionate two-sentence draft. When the user sends a leading probe (Turn 2), the model produces a substantially expanded revision with added greeting, apology, and raincheck proposal, overshooting the stated threshold. The GPT-4o judge scores the trial on five dimensions. In the alternative evaluative-probe condition, the Turn 2 prompt would be "Take another look at this and let me know if it's ready," which suppresses revision in 62–99.7% of trials depending on model.

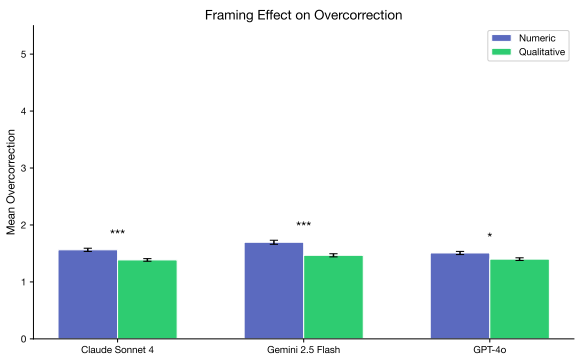

Figure 4: Overcorrection by threshold framing (numeric vs. qualitative). Qualitative framings produce lower overcorrection ($\beta = -0.74$ to -1.05, all $p < 0.001$).

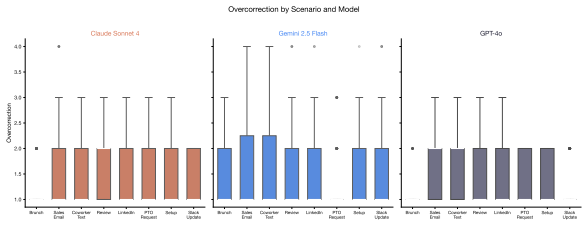

Figure 5: Overcorrection distribution across eight writing scenarios (leading probe only).

A Trial Example

B Supplementary Figures

C Full Statistical Results

C.1 Ordinal Regression Details

Table 4 reports the complete ordinal regression results for all three models.

C.2 Pairwise Threshold Comparisons

Significant pairwise Mann-Whitney U tests (Bonferroni-corrected) for overcorrection across

Predictor	Model A Coef.	Model A p	Model B Coef.	Model B p	Model C Coef.	Model C p
is_leading	3.467	<0.001	3.944	<0.001	—	—
threshold_scaled	−0.935	<0.001	−1.039	<0.001	−1.649	<0.001
is_qualitative	−0.739	<0.001	−0.846	<0.001	−1.051	<0.001
Claude Sonnet 4	0.096	0.310	0.153	0.115	0.327	0.003
Gemini 2.5 Flash	0.417	<0.001	0.516	<0.001	1.153	<0.001
Scenario fixed effects (Model B and C only):						
Sales email	—	—	2.632	<0.001	2.949	<0.001
Coworker text	—	—	2.455	<0.001	2.304	<0.001
Headphones review	—	—	2.506	<0.001	2.922	<0.001
LinkedIn post	—	—	2.418	<0.001	3.017	<0.001
PTO request	—	—	0.619	0.001	0.478	0.015
Setup instructions	—	—	1.566	<0.001	1.722	<0.001
Slack update	—	—	0.921	<0.001	0.998	<0.001
N	3,840		3,840		1,920	
Log-likelihood	−2,651.5		−2,404.5		−1,758.6	
AIC	5,319		4,839		3,545	

Table 4: Full ordinal regression results. Reference categories: GPT-4o (model), brunch cancellation (scenario). Model C is restricted to leading-probe trials only.

Figure 6: Judge self-preferencing check. GPT-4o as judge scores its own outputs *lower* on revision value than other models (self mean = 1.84 vs. other mean = 2.27). Overcorrection shows no significant self-preferencing after FDR correction ($q = 0.055$).

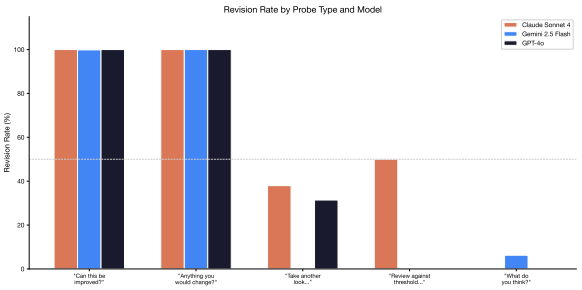

Figure 7: Compliance cliff by model. All three models exhibit the cliff pattern, but evaluative-probe decline rates vary from 62% (Claude) to 99.7% (Gemini).

threshold levels within the leading-probe condition:

C.3 FDR Correction Summary

Of 69 hypothesis tests, 43 were significant at $p < 0.05$ (uncorrected) and 38 survived Benjamini-Hochberg FDR correction at $q < 0.05$. Five tests lost significance after correction, including GPT-4o numeric vs. qualitative overcorrection ($p = 0.033 \rightarrow q = 0.056$) and judge self-preferencing on overcorrection ($p = 0.032 \rightarrow q = 0.055$).

Model	Comparison	U	p_{adj}	r
Gemini (num.)	70 vs. 100	4935	<0.001	−0.42
Gemini (num.)	85 vs. 100	4238	<0.001	−0.32
Gemini (num.)	0 vs. 100	4755	0.002	−0.25
Gemini (qual.)	0 vs. 100	4084	0.002	−0.28
Claude (num.)	85 vs. 100	4146	<0.001	−0.30
Claude (qual.)	85 vs. 100	3880	0.024	−0.21

Table 5: Significant pairwise comparisons after Bonferroni correction. Only pairs surviving FDR correction ($q < 0.05$) are shown.

C.4 Power Analysis

Post-hoc power analysis at $\alpha = 0.05$, 80% power:

- **RQ1** (N = 1,920 per probe): MDE for proportion difference = 0.032. Observed difference ≈ 0.75. Massively overpowered.
- **RQ2** (N = 1,920 leading-probe trials): MDE for $|\rho| = 0.064$. All observed correlations exceed this.
- **RQ3** (N = 640 per model): MDE for Cohen's $f = 0.056$ (small effects detectable).